

POLITICAL ARGUMENT AND EMOTION: AN ANALYSIS OF 2000 PRESIDENTIAL CAMPAIGN DISCOURSE

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What is the relationship between political argument and the expression of emotion? Is emotion a separate and distinct property, wholly apart from substantive appeals? Is emotion part and parcel of the act of communicating ideas, inseparable from what has been focused on as “rational” or “logical” appeals? Is the expression of emotion always a reflection of our “dark side,” and if so, is it inherently fallacious to express conviction through passion? These are some of the questions that this essay will consider in discussing the role of emotion in political argument. Following a discussion of the relevant literature on reason and emotion in communication, and more specifically, in argument, we will use the Bush/Gore political debates, as well as their respective acceptance speeches, to discuss the connections between political argument and emotion.

Reason and Emotion in Communication

Within the Western culture, as McKerrow (1998) has noted, the dichotomy between reason and emotion has a long and deeply ingrained history. To be rational is to express ideas in an unemotional manner. To be emotional is to be bereft of reason. The dichotomy is further complicated by its reference to gender, wherein males are the privileged users of rational talk, while women are relegated to the inferior stance in expressing ideas through emotion. Both men and women are enjoined to control the expression of emotion; men so as to seem strong and vital, women so as to seem counter to their projected image. As Lutz (1990) points out: “The rhetoric of emotional control . . . suggests a set of roles - one strong and defensive and the other weak but invasive - that are hierarchized and linked with gender roles Women, more than men, may speak of control because they are concerned about counteracting the cultural denigration of themselves through an association with emotion” (pp. 73, 75). As Aristotle observed, the function of *pathos* must be requisite to the circumstances calling it forth; too much or too little both make the audience question the speaker’s understanding of what is required (Hyde, 1984; Smith & Hyde, 1991). Sam

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Donaldson probably had not read his Aristotle, but expressed the same theme after the Bush-Ferraro debate in 1984: “The candidate that gets too emotional at the wrong times or for no apparent reason, loses points. If you get emotional for the right reason, meaning you are responding very fervently to an attack or you feel very deeply, you get points” (cited in Shields & MacDowell, 1987, p. 78). The dichotomy between reason and emotion remains prefigured in this opposition, as too much emotion is seen as irrational, while too little reflects a candidate that is “wooden” or “out of touch” with his own feelings. The gender fixation on “his” is intentional: Donaldson, and Aristotle before him, are focused on what happens to men, not necessarily to women using too much or too little emotion. Ferraro did not, in 1984, have the same latitude as Bush in the expression of emotion. That she would still not enjoy the same latitude in 2001 suggests that the linkage between reason/men and women/emotion remains alive and well within our political culture.

One could argue that this mutual exclusivity between reason and emotion and the corresponding gender roles it implicates is an illusion, or at the very least, a culture-specific phenomenon (McKerrow, 1998; Planalp, 1998). As Planalp (1998) notes, there is a growing respect for the sense in which “emotion and reason are intertwined” (p. 66). Emotion and reason are often in a co-dependency relationship, wherein one influences the other. To assume that rational discourse is that which is absent pathos, or that pathos-driven discourse is absent reason is to miss the force of their mutual interaction. This position also is argued by McGee (1998) in noting that emotion may be viewed as a “supplement” to reason (p. 176). What Abu-Lughod and Lutz (1990) say of emotion, that it “gets its meaning and force from its location and performance in the public realm of discourse,” could also be said of reason tinged with emotion, and emotion tinged with reason (p. 7). Separating these as “reason only” and “emotion only” neglects the possibility that emotion carries its own logic, and that reason needs emotion to move the soul to action. Recent research by Nabi (1999) gives reason for hope with respect to a move toward a more helpful theoretical stance regarding how emotion and reason are seen. Recognizing that “persuasive messages more often than not combine rational and emotional appeals,” Nabi argues for a “cognitive/functional” model that appreciates the role of logic and the corresponding functionality of emotional expression as part of a wholistic analysis of discourse (p. 313). Nabi’s “dual model” has the same aim as that presented in Way and Masters’s (1996) neuropsychological argument that “emotion and cognition are independent – and interdependent” (p. 49). On the one hand, there is clear neurological evidence that while

“emotional and cognitive processing occur in separate systems” they also operate “in parallel, meaning that . . . [they] occur simultaneously rather than sequentially” (p. 51). One thus influences the other in forming an “integrated attitude” (p. 51). Still, Burleson and Planalp’s (2000) review, as well as the essays contained within Andersen and Guerrero’s (1998) edited volume on communication and emotion, remain firmly rooted in a tradition that keeps the cultural properties of reason and emotion more or less intact (perhaps suggesting that nineteenth-century faculty psychology, otherwise discarded, remains influential). This is especially clear in van Eemeren, Grootendorst and Henkemans’s (1996) discussion, as they suggest that while emotions may “play a part in adopting a position” it remains the case that “these internal motives, which have been assimilated in the discourse, are not directly relevant as such” (p. 2).

As suggested above, then, emotion is a part of everyday living, and its expression by either men or women is a cultural performance that plays back on the person as an indication of competence in enacting the requisite verbal or nonverbal code for a particular setting. Thus, Gerald Ford could be thought sympathetic and caring in expressing heartfelt emotion over his wife’s mastectomy, and Michael Dukakis could be criticized for failing to express a “normal” emotional reaction of a husband when asked how he would react, during a presidential debate, were his wife the victim of a rapist (especially one who had been recently released from prison as a direct consequence of lax laws). Edmund Muskie, on the other hand, could fall from grace in part because of alleged tears over the *Manchester Guardian*’s critique of his wife. These are illustrations of the power appropriate or inappropriate expressions of emotion in discourse have in affecting the future aspirations of a candidate. As Shields and MacDowell (1987) discovered, how candidates are perceived affects the way in which emotional expressions are judged: What audience members see as emotional is determined in part by whether they favor or oppose a particular candidate.

Emotion and Argument

On a more precise level, what remains to be judged is the relationship between emotion and argument. This relationship has been examined, primarily, through an analysis of informal logic and fallacious reasoning, wherein the impact of emotive appeals has been seen as a deviant form of argumentation, as in van Eemeren, Grootendorst and Henkemans’ position, described above. Walton’s (1992) examination of four major fallacious arguments (appeals to people, pity, fear, and person) linked most often with emotive appeals works

from both sides of the dichotomy reviewed above. On the one hand, it is clear from his phrasing that emotion and reason occupy separate realms (in setting emotional appeals “against cognitive considerations,” p. 69). On the other hand, he sometimes refers favorably to the more recent view that they are, if independent, also interdependent (“whereby reason and emotion tutor and monitor each other,” p. 67). While he retains the view that “appeals to emotion . . . are inherently weak arguments,” his overall goal is to “vindicate appeals to emotion in argumentation as having practical value” (p. 19). In reaching this goal, Walton notes that “appeals to emotion can be admitted in a critical discussion and are legitimate in other contexts of dialogue as well, but they need to be evaluated by boundary conditions that rule them as fallacious in some cases” (p. 25). Thus, an appeal to the commitments of the people, as a reason for another to adopt a belief or act as requested, may be a legitimate rationale. Similarly, an attack on a person’s character may be a relevant and useful consideration in deciding whether that person is fit to lead.

The key consideration of legitimacy, for Walton (1992), is in deciding whether an appeal contributes to the resolution of a critical discussion, or retards or redirects its course in deleterious fashion. There is no single rule that suggests when such has occurred, but within each instance one can analyze the conditions underlying argument and determine whether an emotive-based appeal is relevant to the discussion. A second consideration, and one we feel is too delimiting with respect to the judgment of emotion, is Walton’s characterization of emotional expression as revealing “dark-side commitments . . . [which] reflect the arguer’s deeper underlying convictions or position” (p. 27). What we object to here is the impression that there is always a deeper level of signification that is implied in any overt expression. There may be, but whether it reflects a “dark” element (as in hidden to prevent it being seen) or not seems a stretch with respect to emotive expression. Emotions may be transparent (“what you see is what you get”), and they may reflect positive as well as negative valences. Thus, while we utilize Walton’s perspective with respect to those argument types sharing a focus on emotion in the subsequent analysis, we do not necessarily “buy into” the theoretical justification for assessing emotional expression as the dark side of discourse. Rather, we see these two forms as interdependent, intertwined with one another, such that the expression of argument carries with it an unmistakable emotional tone in some measure or degree of force. The impact of the argument on the audience is determined in some measure (perhaps more than it might be) by the emotive force with which it is conveyed. In more direct fashion, classic argumentative appeals to emotion

heighten the potential impact, as they carry force both within the content as well as within the manner of expression.

Political Analysis

Before applying the argument type to specific instances, it will be helpful to provide an example of each type and briefly identify how each is utilized and identified in discourse (these are abstracted/revised from Walton's, 1992, summary discussion, pp. 258-60).

Argumentum ad baculum or "an appeal to fear" suggests that belief or action will entail a threat to one's own person or to one's sense of security. It may be an exaggeration, or it may in fact be a thought to consider prior to acting. An appeal to fear is used in the first Presidential debate between Vice President Al Gore and Governor George W. Bush.¹ Vice President Gore's use of the argument *ad baculum* provides support for his position on *Roe v. Wade*.

Well, Jim, the FDA took 12 years, and I do support that decision [legalizing RU-486]. They determined it was medically safe for the women who use that drug.

Now this is indeed a very important issue. First of all, on the issue of partial-birth or so-called later-term abortion, I would sign a law banning that procedure, provided that doctors have the ability to save a woman's life or to act if her health is severely at risk.

*And that's not the main issue. The main issue is whether or not the *Roe v. Wade* decision's going to be overturned. I support a woman's right to choose. My opponent does not. It is important, because [the] next president is going to appoint three, maybe even four justices of the Supreme Court. And Governor Bush has declared to the anti-choice groups that he will appoint justices in the mold of Scalia and Clarence Thomas, who are known for being the most vigorous opponents of woman's right to choose.*

Argumentum ad populum or "an appeal to the people" focuses attention on what a group or collective believes to be the case, and ties approval of a position to its belief. Presumably, if you go against the collective, you may face being ostracized, and that

¹ For the convenience of the reader, references to speeches will be identified in context, and were drawn from Cable News Network (2000a, 2000b) and Federal News Service (2000). All texts were drawn from videotapes of the respective speeches and transcripts found on-line.

negatively affects your desire to be a part of something beyond yourself. Vice President Al Gore uses argument *ad populum* when discussing the American family in his August 17, 2000, acceptance speech at the Democratic National Convention in Los Angeles, California. In this example, Gore is appealing to families to gain support for his position on education reform.

And as president, I will stand with you for a goal we all share -- to give more power back to the parents. To choose what your own children are exposed to, so you can pass on your family's basic lessons of responsibility and decency. The power should be in your hands. The future should belong to everyone in this land -- everyone, all families.

Argumentum ad misericordiam or “an appeal to pity” may be used to enlist sympathy for a person or event, and thereby enlist aid on the part of the person to whom it is directed. Governor George W. Bush used argument *ad misericordiam* to provide support for his position on welfare reform in his August 3, acceptance speech at the Republican National Convention in Philadelphia.

I think of Mary Jo Copeland, whose ministry called “Sharing and Caring Hands” serves 1,000 meals a week in Minneapolis, Minnesota.

Each day, Mary Jo washes the feet of the homeless, then sends them off with new socks and shoes.

“Look after your feet,” she tells them . . . “They must carry you a long way in this world, and then all the way to God.”

Government cannot do this work. It can feed the body, but it cannot reach the soul. Yet government can take the side of these groups, helping the helper, encouraging the inspired.

My administration will give taxpayers new incentives to donate to charity, encourage after-school programs that build character, and support mentoring groups that shape and save young lives.

Argumentum ad hominem or “appeal directed to a person” suggests that one disbelieves an idea or proposal because of character or other defects in the person proposing it. While often an irrelevancy, it is the case that on occasion the fact that a person is a liar, cheat and all-around miscreant might be relevant to consider before accepting his or her proposal. In the second presidential debate held at Wake Forest University on October 11, 2000,

Governor Bush's use of argument *ad hominem* questions the truthfulness of Vice President Gore's stance on health care reform.

Well, first of all, let me say, he's not for a government-run health care system [?] I thought that's exactly what he and Mrs. Clinton and them fought for in 1993, was a government-run health care system. That was fortunately stopped in its tracks.

An analysis of the presidential campaign discourse of 2000 provides support for Walton's claims that the use of emotive appeals can both enhance and hinder a speaker's argument. By identifying examples of each argument type observed in the 2000 campaign discourse of Presidential Candidates Al Gore and George W. Bush and determining their efficacy, this analysis can reveal appropriate conditions in which certain emotional appeals may be most influential. There are two distinct uses of emotional appeals in the campaign discourse of these candidates, in calling into question the competency and preparedness of the opponent and in promoting one's own candidacy.

Attacking the Opponent

The two argument types most closely associated with the statements candidates made to question the credibility of their opponent are *ad baculum* (appeals to fear) and *ad hominem* (appeals directed to a person) attacks. In the case of Texas Governor George W. Bush, the campaign against Vice President Al Gore required a challenger strategy in which many of the differences between the two candidate's platforms were clarified by identifying the weaknesses of the current administration and associating them with the Gore campaign. For example, in his acceptance speech on August 3, 2000, at the Republican National Convention in Philadelphia, Bush uses both appeals to fear and those directed at the person when discussing Gore's leadership potential and the readiness of the U.S. military under the current administration:

. . .the Clinton/Gore administration has squandered it. We have seen a steady erosion of American power and an unsteady exercise of American influence. Our military is low on parts, pay and morale. If called on by the commander-in-chief today, two entire divisions of the Army would have to report . . . Not ready for duty, sir.

By linking candidate Gore to the current administration of which he is the Vice President, Bush publicly criticizes Gore's qualifications and credibility when discussing the

readiness of the U.S. military, therefore weakening Gore's position on the issue. Bush reinforces his attack against Gore throughout his acceptance speech by ignoring Gore individually and referring to his candidacy as "they." In this instance "they" are Clinton and Gore. Bush reminds the audience throughout his speech that, "They had their chance. They have not led. We will."

Although refraining from using a blatant fear appeal, Bush does attempt to convince his audience that Gore will put the U.S. in danger because of a weak U.S. Military. Furthermore, Gore is partially responsible for the weak condition of the U.S. military; this weakness will continue if Gore wins the presidency. However, Bush agrees with Gore in the first presidential debate held on October 3, 2000, at the University of Massachusetts, Boston, that "our military is the strongest in the world today. That's not the question." To reinforce his position on the Clinton/Gore, thus Gore, administration's role in the decline of the military, Bush uses the emotional appeal of *ad misericordiam* (pity) to question the competence of his opponent:

The question is will it be the strongest in years to come? And the warning signs are real. Everywhere I go around the campaign trail I see people who -- moms and dads whose son or daughter may wear the uniform, and they tell me about how discouraged their son or daughter may be. A recent poll was taken amongst a thousand enlisted personnel, as well as officers, over half of whom are going to leave the service when their time of enlistment is up. The captains are leaving the service. There is a problem, and it's going to require a new commander-in-chief to rebuild the military power.

In this same speech, Bush shifts our focus to military personnel and what they must endure under the current leadership, further criticizing Al Gore and his potential role as commander-in-chief. His use of fear and pity to call into question Gore's leadership on an issue as important as the readiness of the U.S. military, although negative in nature, does not constitute the "dark-side" of argument suggested by Walton (p.27). Instead, it is obvious that Bush is taking the offensive position on the issue of the U.S. military and placing blame for its erosion squarely on Gore's shoulders. Bush's attack is met with a biographical response from Gore who also uses an appeal to pity in an attempt to reestablish his credibility as the candidate with military experience:

When I was a young man, I volunteered for the Army. I served my country in Vietnam. My father was a senator who strongly opposed the Vietnam War. I went to

college in this great city [Boston], and most of my peers felt against the war, as I did. But I went anyway, because I knew if I didn't, somebody else in the small town of Carthage, Tennessee would have to go in my place.

Using pity to gain support for his candidacy, Gore's response to the previous attacks lacked the clarity that was observed in Bush's arguments against him. Although Gore is trying to establish his credibility on the military issue, his pity (a cynic might say "pitiful") appeal fails to respond to Bush's offensive position. Instead, Gore's strategy is to refrain from attacking his opponent's credibility in raising such an issue until the conclusion of the debate. Gore concludes the first presidential debate on October 3, with an *ad hominem* appeal against Bush's character:

Look, Governor Bush, you have attacked my character and credibility, and I am not going to respond in kind.

I think we ought to focus on the problems and not attack each other, . . .

A weakness in Gore's argumentative strategy in this instance is that it lacks framing. Gore's attempt to impugn Bush's character as the debate concluded and not direct *ad hominem* attacks at particular issues throughout the debate may leave the audience without contextual references, such as Bush's lack of experience as a military leader or his general weakness as a candidate. In general, Gore's use of emotional appeals seems to be *non sequitur* in nature, serving as strong emotional examples, but without a contextual framing to enhance the overall argument. Had he noted, in the context of Bush's call for strong military leadership, that he had been in the "heat of the battle" in the Somalian or Yugoslavian crises, he would have directed his credibility at Bush's lack thereof. At the very least, his decision to gloss over all such attacks with a general "we should rise above attacks" is a weak response to the constancy of such attacks. Without such response, his final appeal is context-less, and "lame."

Bush used fear appeals when discussing the quality of the U.S. military, but it was a common strategy used by him throughout the three televised debates. When discussing a variety of issues ranging from education to healthcare, Bush, in an attempt to distinguish his platform from that of Gore's and the Democrats', would position the people against the federal government. "I trust people; I don't trust the federal government," Bush stated during the third presidential debate when discussing healthcare. He further linked any Gore healthcare plan to that of the current administration, reminding the audience of the failed

1993 healthcare reform. When discussing education, Bush used a similar strategy when stating that; “One size does not fit all. I’d worry about federalizing education, if I were you.”

When comparing the use of emotional appeals in the attack strategies of Bush and Gore in their 2000 campaign discourse, Bush used fear and pity more extensively than Gore, who rarely relied on these techniques to create a distinction between his candidacy and that of Bush. When considering candidate status, Bush assumes the role of the Washington outsider and challenger against Gore, who, although not an incumbent, is being aligned with the current administration. Unable to separate himself from the current administration, Vice President Gore relies on his own accomplishments without using emotional appeals to criticize Bush’s past political experiences or presidential qualifications.

Promoting Their Candidacy

All four types of emotional arguments identified by Walton can be found in the candidates’ discussions of their own qualifications. For Gore, arguments are complex to the extent that he often included references to numerous political issues, while using several emotional appeals to move his audience. The following is an example drawn from Al Gore’s acceptance speech. It includes two emotional argument types, *ad baculum* and *ad populum*:

How and what we do for all of you, the people who pay the taxes, bear the burdens and live the American dream, that is the standard by which we should be judged. And for all of our good times, I am not satisfied. To all the families in America . . . [applause]

To all of the families in America who have to struggle to afford the right education and the skyrocketing costs of prescription drugs, I want you to know this: I’ve taken on the powerful forces, and as president, I’ll stand up to them and I’ll stand up for you. To all of the families -- to all the families who are struggling with things that money can’t measure, like trying to find a little more time to spend with your children or protecting your children from entertainment that you think glorifies violence and indecency, I want you to know I believe we must challenge a culture with too much meanness and not enough meaning.

And as president, I will stand with you for a goal we all share -- to give more power back to the parents. To choose what your own children are exposed to, so you can pass on your family’s basic lessons of responsibility and decency. The

power should be in your hands. The future should belong to everyone in the land -- everyone, all families.

By focusing on those issues linked to “the American dream,” Gore establishes an understanding of the voter’s plight and what all families must endure. Gore places himself among his constituents, creating the image that he is as hardworking as they are and that his experiences are similar to theirs. By stating his personal accomplishments in terms that establish a relationship with his audience, Gore appeals to the people while simultaneously campaigning as a new leader ready to take the nation to greater prosperity and the American dream. He emphasizes a feeling that he projects as being in common with his audience toward taxes, education and violence in the media.

Another distinct emotional appeal used by Gore is pity. In the same acceptance speech, to establish his position on healthcare and the role of HMOs, Gore uses an emotional example to back his claim:

And I will never forget a little boy named Ian Malone, who suffered from a medical mistake during childbirth and needs full-time nursing care for several years. I met him and his parents in Seattle near Everett, Washington, their home, and their HMO had told the Malone’s that it would no longer pay for the nurse they needed and then actually told them they should consider giving Ian up for adoption.

That’s when his mom and dad got really mad. They told their story in public, and the HMO was embarrassed. Because they fought for their baby, today Ian has the care he needs to stay alive. But no family in America should have to go on national television to save their child’s life.

By emotionalizing a logical appeal, Gore attempts to clarify his position on HMOs and the role that they should play in healthcare. As in the previous example, there is an element of fear that may be inferred. If the HMOs can deny healthcare to Ian Malone, they can deny health care to you. To further enhance the argument, Gore introduces the Malone family who were present at the convention.

Dylan and Christine Malone are here with us tonight. Ian’s here, too. And I say to them, and to all the families of America, I will fight for a real, enforceable patients’ bill of rights.

Gore’s use of emotional argument is distinct, relying on lengthy narratives and detailed references to “real people.” This strategy, found throughout Gore’s campaign discourse, may not enhance, but weaken his argument, distracting the audience from any policy

implications and, instead, focusing attention on the “real people.” In the Malone example, the emphasis is less on the condition of the medical industry, but more on Ian Malone and what his family endures on a regular basis. Gore references the Malone’s to illustrate the dangers of over reliance on the medical industry, using fear and pity to move the audience toward his position on the issue. But, the real people overshadow the issue; it is their faces that are used to illustrate his point. By introducing the Malone’s and their experiences in the health care industry, Gore provides support for his policy toward the HMOs and healthcare reform in general. Although logically sound, the highly emotional level of their situation and the amount of time Gore spends on describing their plight, including the language used, in addition to introducing them in person, may potentially distract the audience from the overall argument he is trying to make. Instead of focusing our attention on the issue of healthcare, emotions are directed toward the Malone’s, circumventing any logical support Gore is attempting to make on the health care issue. Instead of gaining support for his policy, the sympathy vote is for the Malone’s as our emotions are associated with their situation, not the argument. The interdependency is severed in this instance, refocusing attention on the wrong object.

While Gore used lengthy emotional narratives with detail to establish his credibility as a candidate, Bush relied on less precise detail to appeal to his audience. The following excerpt from Bush’s acceptance speech, specifically that addressing economic impact, illustrates the use of argument *ad populum* and *ad baculum*:

A couple of years ago, I visited a juvenile jail in Marlin, Texas, and talked with a group of young inmates. They were angry, wary kids. All had committed grownup crimes.

Yet when I looked in their eyes, I realized some of them were still little boys.

Toward the end of conversation, one young man, about 15 raised his hand and asked a haunting question ... “What do you think of me?”

He seemed to be asking, like many Americans who struggle ... “Is there hope for me? Do I have a chance?” And, frankly ... “Do you, a white man in a suit, really care what happens to me?”

A small voice, but it speaks for so many. Single moms struggling to feed kids and pay the rent. Immigrants starting a hard life in a new world.

Children without fathers in neighborhoods where gangs seem like friendship, where drugs promise peace, and where sex, sadly, seems like the closest thing to belonging.

We are the country, too.

In this example, Bush references an experience he had, but does not provide specific names. Although ambiguous, his narrative draws our attention to a societal condition in which we are all participants. Instead of directing pity toward others specifically, Bush directs that pity toward all members of society, suggesting a degree of culpability. In suggesting culpability, Bush creates a strong emotional argument and attempts to involve his audience by including all Americans in the problem and potential solution. He states that, “[the] new economy must never forget the old, unfinished struggle for human dignity.”

Context Matters

The arguments analyzed in the two forms of campaign discourse selected here are unique in that various aspects of the contexts in which they were presented influence their efficacy. The written transcripts reveal only part of the emotional arguments presented by the two candidates. The television, campaign environment, and, for the debates, the format influenced the development of the candidate’s arguments.

The presence of the camera for the television audience as well as for the large screens used during the conventions provided additional support for the candidate’s arguments. Without the split screen used in the first presidential debate and observed by the television audience, Gore’s nonverbal responses to Bush’s character attacks would not have added significance to the emotional rebuttal he used to conclude his speech. Furthermore, the discussion of Ian Malone during Gore’s acceptance speech would be less real if the camera had not focused on them as their story was being disclosed. In both instances, the camera enhanced the emotional appeal, providing a dimension to the argument that would not have been as influential otherwise.

While the camera certainly impacted the emotional arguments as observed by the television audience, the campaign environment, too, was equally influential. Throughout the acceptance speeches, both candidates had their arguments immediately validated by the convention audience. For example, Gore’s acceptance speech was interrupted 110 times by applause. Therefore, the context in which the argument is presented is inextricably a part of

the argument; hence, what may be a weak argument, such as the lengthy narrative about Ian Malone cited earlier, is increased in its efficacy.

Finally, the formats and the presence of a moderator affected the development of the candidate's arguments during the three debates. Time limits set for candidate's responses did not allow them the rhetorical freedom observed in their acceptance speeches but required more concise responses. Furthermore, each debate was different, the first resulting in the use of more emotional appeals by both candidates, when compared to the second or third debates which were organized as a discussion and town meeting, respectively.

Conclusion

While it would be easy to make some general statements about the use of emotional appeals in the campaign discourse of 2000, it must be stated that there are some distinct differences between the candidates and that the candidates' rhetorical competence may have played a part in the types of arguments used. These competencies, more than any other factor, may explain the use and effectiveness of the emotional appeals. Gore's use of real people and his unwillingness to question Bush's character certainly influenced his discourse as much as Bush's decision to approach the campaign as a Washington outsider.

As the preceding analysis reveals, all four types of appeals identified by Walton were observed in the candidate's speeches. The extent to which these appeals enhance an argument is questionable. In a context in which the expression of emotion is potentially damaging to an opponent, the rhetorical choice of the candidate becomes critical. As in the first debate between Gore and Bush, Gore's decision to refrain from attacking Bush's character resulted in a more conservative style that may have weakened his overall argument and performance. Gore's use of real people, although enhanced by the visuals provided by the television camera, may have distracted the audience from the issue at hand.

These narratives do provide the simultaneous cognitive and emotional appeals identified by Way and Masters (1996) and can result in a more developed argument. Unfortunately, the Malone example fails Walton's (1992) legitimacy consideration in that it redirects our attention to the individuals involved and not the issue at hand. While we may be sympathetic toward the Malone's experiences, we may not necessarily see ourselves in a similar situation. The same could be said when considering Bush's Marlin, Texas, example. Although offering less detail than Gore, Bush, too, fails to legitimize the culpability that he is placing on the audience. Both emotional appeals provide substantive support for the

candidates' arguments but may inhibit, more than enhance, the argument each makes on behalf of their respective candidacy.

Bush's attack on Gore's character may be the most appropriate use of an emotional appeal. Campaigning as a Washington outsider, Bush used pity and fear to criticize Gore and the current administration. Substantively, Bush drew our attention to weaknesses in the Gore platform and his previous political accomplishments. As a consequence, Bush's "understated" use of emotional appeals, on the whole, may have had greater impact in depicting his candidacy as that "of the people." Oddly enough, the patrician became the commoner.

We return, then, to an opening observation: nothing in our review of the use of emotional argument suggests that invoking emotion is irrational, or that it is inherently weaker than other forms of argument. Rather, we are suggesting that the use of emotive arguments, as in the case of the "fallacies" reviewed earlier in this analysis, must be evaluated for their efficacy and appropriateness on a case-by-case basis; they are neither "irrelevant to reason" nor are they the "dark side" of argument. They are as integral to the act of arguing as breathing and as potentially relevant to the situation as would be the case with any other appeal, and those other appeals will carry their own emotive force with respect to expression, if not with respect to the form of the appeal itself. In fact, we would be surprised to find in a candidate's discourse an absence of emotion, as its use is as natural as reason and as critical to the candidate's ultimate success.

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